



THE RISE OF NATIONALISM IN EUROPE

History - Class 10 | Proper AbiLearn Notes

Chapter 1 explains how modern **nationalism** grew in Europe. The focus is not only dates. The real logic is how people moved from loyalty to **kings, dynasties, empires and regions** towards loyalty to a **nation-state**. The chapter also shows that nationalism began as a force of freedom, but later became dangerous when mixed with **imperialism and power politics**.

1. Chapter Backbone - Exact Flow

The chapter has one central movement: Europe moves from old dynastic rule to modern nation-states. This did not happen in one step. It developed through ideas, revolutions, cultural symbols, economic changes, wars and diplomatic strategies.

Core terms

- **Nationalism** means a feeling of common identity, unity and loyalty among people who believe they form one nation.
- **Nation-state** means a state whose citizens share a common national identity and accept one central political authority.
- **Sovereignty** means supreme power. The French Revolution shifted sovereignty from the monarch to citizens.

Logical chain of the chapter

- **Utopian dream** of democratic republics appears in Sorrieu's prints.
- **French Revolution** creates the modern idea of citizens and nation.
- **Napoleon** spreads modern laws but also creates imperial domination.
- **Conservatives** try to restore monarchy after 1815.
- **Revolutionaries and liberals** keep nationalism alive.
- **Culture, language and Romanticism** spread emotional national identity.
- **Germany and Italy** are unified through leadership, war and diplomacy.
- **Britain** becomes a nation-state through gradual English dominance.

- **Balkans** show the dangerous side of nationalism when joined with imperial rivalry.

2. Frédéric Sorrieu's Utopian Vision

In 1848, the French artist **Frédéric Sorrieu** prepared a series of four prints to show his dream of a world made up of **democratic and social republics**. This dream was called **utopian** because it represented an ideal world that people desired, even though it did not actually exist at that time.

What the first print shows

- People of **Europe and America** are shown marching in a long procession.
- They move towards the **Statue of Liberty**, which represents freedom, democracy and rights.
- The female figure of Liberty carries the **torch of Enlightenment**, meaning reason, knowledge and progress.
- She also holds the **Charter of the Rights of Man**, which represents civil rights and equality.
- On the ground lie broken symbols of **absolutist institutions**, showing the fall of monarchy, feudal privileges and old authority.
- People are grouped as separate nations, identified by **national flags** and **national costumes**.
- The procession is led by the **United States and Switzerland**, followed by France, Germany, Austria, Kingdom of Two Sicilies, Lombardy, Poland, England, Ireland, Hungary and Russia.
- Christ, saints and angels look from above, symbolising **fraternity among nations**.

Why this is important

Sorrieu's print shows nationalism as a hopeful and liberating force. It imagines a future where old monarchies are destroyed and nations are built on freedom, equality and democratic rights. The print is important because it visually presents the end result of European nationalism: the rise of the modern nation-state.

3. The French Revolution and the Idea of the Nation

The **French Revolution of 1789** was the first clear expression of nationalism in Europe. Before the revolution, France was ruled by an absolute monarch. After the revolution, the idea developed that the nation was made up of citizens, and that political power should come from the people.

Measures used to create collective identity

- **La patrie** means the fatherland. It created emotional unity among the French people.
- **Le citoyen** means the citizen. It created a common political identity.
- The old royal flag was replaced by the **French tricolour**, which became the national symbol.
- The **Estates-General** was renamed the **National Assembly**, showing that the people were now the source of authority.
- New **hymns, oaths and martyrs** were created in the name of the nation.

- A **centralised administrative system** was introduced.
- Uniform laws were made for the whole territory.
- Internal customs duties were abolished so goods could move more freely.
- Uniform weights and measures were introduced to create administrative and economic unity.
- French was promoted as the common language, while regional dialects were discouraged.

Mission of French revolutionaries

French revolutionaries believed that it was their mission to liberate other peoples of Europe from **despotism**. They saw the revolution not only as a French event, but as a model for all Europe.

4. Napoleon and the Civil Code of 1804

Napoleon carried many revolutionary reforms into the territories he conquered. His rule is important because it had two opposite sides: he modernised Europe through laws and administration, but he also destroyed democracy and ruled as an emperor.

Positive reforms of Napoleon

- The **Civil Code of 1804**, also called the **Napoleonic Code**, abolished privileges based on birth.
- It established **equality before law**.
- It secured the **right to property**.
- It simplified administrative divisions and legal systems.
- It abolished the feudal system in many conquered regions.
- Peasants were freed from **serfdom** and **manorial dues** in many areas.
- Transport and communication systems were improved.
- Businessmen and small producers welcomed uniform laws, standard weights and measures, and removal of restrictions.

Limitations of Napoleon

- Napoleon destroyed democracy in France and ruled like an emperor.
- Men without property could not vote.
- Women were denied political rights.
- The press was controlled and censored.
- Conquered territories faced increased taxes and forced military conscription.

The correct exam logic is this: **Napoleon spread modern reforms, but he did not give real political freedom**. He modernised Europe, but he also dominated it.

5. Europe Before Nationalism - Empires, Aristocracy and Middle Class

Before nationalism, Europe was not divided into neat modern nation-states. It was made up of empires, kingdoms, duchies, city-states and dynastic territories. People identified themselves through region, religion, language, local ruler and social status more than through a national identity.

Habsburg Empire as a multinational empire

The **Habsburg Empire** was a strong example of a multinational empire. It ruled many different peoples who did not share one common language, culture or national identity. They were connected mainly by loyalty to the emperor.

- It included Alpine regions such as **Tyrol, Austria and Sudetenland**.
- It included **Bohemia**, where the aristocracy was mainly German-speaking.
- It included **Lombardy and Venetia** in Italy.
- It included **Hungary**, where many people spoke Magyar.
- It also included **Poles, Czechs, Slovaks, Slovenes, Croats** and other groups.

The aristocracy

- The aristocracy was the dominant social and political class.
- They were landowning families with hereditary privileges.
- They controlled government posts, army positions and social prestige.
- They often used French as the language of diplomacy and high society.
- They were a small minority, but they had huge influence over politics and administration.

The peasantry

- Peasants formed the majority of Europe's population.
- In Western Europe, much land was farmed by tenants and small owners.
- In Eastern and Central Europe, many peasants were still tied to land through serfdom.
- They paid dues, rents and taxes and had very limited political rights.

The new middle class

- Industrialisation and trade created a new middle class.
- It included industrialists, businessmen, professionals, lawyers, doctors, teachers, traders and artisans.
- They were educated and politically aware.
- They supported liberal nationalism because they wanted political rights, economic freedom and national unity.

6. What Did Liberal Nationalism Stand For?

The word **liberalism** comes from the Latin word **liber**, meaning free. For the new middle classes of Europe, liberal nationalism meant freedom for individuals, equality before law, representative government and free markets. But it also had limits because it did not give political equality to

everyone.

Political liberalism

- Freedom of the individual.
- Equality before law.
- Government by consent.
- Constitutional government and rule of law.
- Freedom of press, speech and association.
- A representative parliament.

Important limitation

Liberalism was **not full democracy** at that time. Political rights were usually limited to property-owning men. Men without property and all women were excluded. During the French Revolution, propertyless men and women were treated as passive citizens.

Economic liberalism

- Freedom of markets.
- Removal of restrictions on movement of goods and capital.
- Abolition of tariff barriers.
- Common currency, weights and measures.
- Free trade and economic unity.

Zollverein

The **Zollverein** was a customs union formed in 1834 at the initiative of Prussia. Most German states joined it. It abolished tariff barriers and reduced the number of currencies from over thirty to two.

- It created stronger economic links among German states.
- It encouraged railway building and trade.
- It made people experience economic unity before political unity.
- Exam logic: **Economic unity prepared the path for political unity in Germany.**

7. A New Conservatism after 1815

After Napoleon's defeat, conservative rulers tried to restore the old political order. **Conservatism** supported monarchy, church authority, social hierarchy, property and family. But after the French Revolution, conservatives understood that some modern changes were necessary. They accepted reform only when it strengthened monarchy and state power.

Congress of Vienna and Treaty of Vienna, 1815

- European powers met at Vienna after Napoleon was defeated.
- The meeting was hosted by Austrian Chancellor **Duke Metternich**.

- The main powers were Britain, Russia, Prussia and Austria.
- The aim was to undo many Napoleonic changes and restore conservative order.
- The **Bourbon dynasty** was restored in France.
- France lost territories annexed under Napoleon.
- A series of states were set up on France's borders to prevent future French expansion.
- The Kingdom of Netherlands was created in the north.
- Genoa was added to Piedmont in the south.
- Prussia received important territories on its western frontier.
- Austria gained control of northern Italy.
- The German Confederation of 39 states was left untouched.

How conservative regimes controlled society

- They were autocratic and did not tolerate criticism.
- They censored newspapers, books, plays and songs.
- They monitored people suspected of spreading liberal and nationalist ideas.
- They created modern armies, efficient bureaucracies and stronger economies.
- They used modernisation to strengthen monarchy, not to create democracy.

8. The Revolutionaries

Revolutionaries were people who opposed conservative rule and wanted liberty, constitutional government, rights and national unity. Since open politics was dangerous after 1815, many revolutionaries worked through **secret societies**.

Giuseppe Mazzini

- Mazzini was born in Genoa in 1807.
- He became a member of the **Carbonari**, a secret society.
- He was sent into exile in 1831 for attempting a revolution in Liguria.
- He founded **Young Italy** in Marseilles.
- He founded **Young Europe** in Berne.
- He wanted a united Italian republic.
- He believed nations were natural units of humanity.
- He connected nationalism with democracy.
- Metternich called him **the most dangerous enemy of our social order** because his ideas threatened monarchies across Europe.

Why revolutionaries mattered

Even when their revolts failed, revolutionaries kept the idea of nationalism alive. They spread the belief that people with common history and culture should live in a united nation-state, not under foreign or dynastic rule.

9. The Age of Revolutions: 1830-1848

The years from 1830 to 1848 saw many revolts across Europe. These revolts were caused by political repression, economic hardship, hunger, unemployment, and growing nationalist ideas.

July Revolution in France, 1830

- The Bourbon kings were overthrown.
- Louis Philippe became ruler.
- This revolution inspired nationalist movements in other parts of Europe.

Belgian Revolution

- Belgium broke away from the United Kingdom of the Netherlands.
- It became an important example of a successful nationalist movement.

Greek War of Independence

- Greece had been part of the Ottoman Empire since the 15th century.
- Greek nationalists began their struggle for independence in 1821.
- Exiled Greeks and West European liberals supported the movement.
- Europeans admired ancient Greek culture and saw Greece as the cradle of European civilisation.
- Poets and artists mobilised public opinion in favour of Greece.
- Lord Byron raised funds and went to fight for Greece, but died of fever in 1824.
- The **Treaty of Constantinople, 1832** recognised Greece as an independent nation.

The Greek struggle shows how culture, history and European public opinion helped nationalism become an international cause.

10. Romantic Imagination and National Feeling

Nationalism was not spread only through politics. Culture played a major role. **Romanticism** was a cultural movement that focused on emotion, intuition, folk culture, national history and a shared past. Romantic artists and poets tried to create emotional attachment to the nation.

How Romanticism helped nationalism

- It used poetry, stories, music, painting, folk songs and folk dances to create national feeling.
- It rejected a purely rational and scientific view of society.
- It celebrated the emotions, memories and traditions of common people.
- It presented folk culture as the true spirit of the nation.
- It helped spread nationalism among people who could not read political writings.

Johann Gottfried Herder

Herder argued that true German culture existed among common people, called **das Volk**. He believed folk songs, folk tales and folk poetry carried the real national spirit.

Language and Poland

- Poland was partitioned by Russia, Prussia and Austria and no longer existed as an independent state.
- After the failed uprising of 1831, Russia imposed the Russian language in schools.
- The Polish language became a symbol of resistance.
- Polish was used in churches and religious instruction.
- Many Polish priests and bishops were punished for refusing to preach in Russian.
- Exam logic: **When political freedom is destroyed, language and culture become tools of resistance.**

Music and nationalism

- Karol Kurpinski celebrated the Polish national struggle through opera and music.
- Frédéric Chopin used Polish folk dances such as **mazurka** and **polonaise**.
- Music helped keep Polish identity alive even when Poland had no independent state.

11. Hunger, Hardship and Popular Revolt

The 1830s and 1840s were years of severe economic hardship. Nationalism grew not only because of political ideas, but also because ordinary people faced hunger, poverty and exploitation.

Causes of hardship

- Rapid population growth increased pressure on food and jobs.
- Bad harvests caused food shortages.
- Food prices rose sharply.
- Unemployment increased in towns and cities.
- Rural people migrated to cities, creating overcrowding.
- Cheap machine-made goods from England ruined small producers and artisans.
- Pauperism, meaning extreme poverty, became widespread.

Silesian Weavers' Revolt, 1845

- Weavers in Silesia revolted against contractors.
- Contractors supplied raw material and collected finished cloth but paid very low wages.
- The weavers attacked contractors' houses and destroyed property.
- The army suppressed the revolt.
- Importance: It showed the anger of workers against economic exploitation.

Paris Revolution, 1848

- Food shortages and unemployment created public anger.
- People built barricades in the streets.
- Louis Philippe was forced to flee.
- A republic was proclaimed.
- All adult males were given voting rights.
- The right to work was recognised.

12. The Revolution of the Liberals - 1848

In 1848, educated middle-class liberals demanded constitutionalism and national unification. Their movement was especially important in German regions, where many political associations came together to form an elected national assembly.

Main liberal demands

- A nation-state based on parliamentary principles.
- A written constitution.
- Freedom of press.
- Freedom of association.
- Universal male suffrage.
- End of autocratic monarchy.

Frankfurt Parliament

- Political associations voted for an all-German National Assembly.
- On 18 May 1848, **831 elected representatives** marched to Frankfurt.
- They met in the **Church of St Paul**.
- They drafted a constitution for a German nation headed by a monarchy subject to Parliament.
- The crown was offered to **Friedrich Wilhelm IV**, King of Prussia.
- He rejected it because he did not want a crown from an elected assembly.
- The Parliament failed because monarchs opposed it, it had no army, and middle-class leaders feared workers and artisans.

Women and political rights

- Women formed political associations.
- Women founded newspapers and attended meetings.
- Women took part in demonstrations.
- Still, women were denied voting rights.
- In the Frankfurt Parliament, women were allowed only as observers in the visitors' gallery.

The Frankfurt Parliament shows the limit of liberal nationalism: it spoke about freedom, but did not give equal political rights to women and weaker social groups.

After 1848

Monarchies suppressed liberal movements, but they also introduced reforms. Serfdom and bonded labour were abolished in the Habsburg dominions and in Russia in 1861. Nationalism could not be completely destroyed.

13. The Making of Germany - Full Structured Explanation

After the failure of the Frankfurt Parliament, German unification moved away from liberal-democratic politics and came under the leadership of **Prussia**. The army and bureaucracy became the main instruments of national unification.

Background before unification

- Germany was divided into many states and principalities.
- The German Confederation had 39 states after the Treaty of Vienna.
- The Frankfurt Parliament failed to create a united liberal Germany.
- Prussia was the strongest German state and had a powerful army and bureaucracy.
- Economic unity through the Zollverein had already created links among German states.

Role of Otto von Bismarck

- Bismarck became Chief Minister of Prussia in 1862.
- He is known as the **architect of German unification**.
- He followed the policy of **Blood and Iron**, meaning military strength and practical politics.
- He was a conservative nationalist, not a liberal democrat.
- He used diplomacy, war and Prussian state power to unify Germany.

Three wars of German unification

War	Main result	Why it mattered
War with Denmark, 1864	Prussia gained influence over Schleswig-Holstein.	It increased Prussian power and created the first step towards leadership over German affairs.
Austro-Prussian War, 1866	Austria was defeated.	Austria was excluded from German affairs, allowing Prussia to dominate unification.
Franco-Prussian War, 1870-71	France was defeated.	German states united against France and final German unity was completed.

Proclamation of the German Empire

- On **18 January 1871**, Prussian King **William I** was proclaimed German Emperor.
- The ceremony took place in the **Hall of Mirrors**, Palace of Versailles, France.
- This was symbolic because Germany was declared after defeating France, inside a French palace.

- Bismarck stood beside William I, showing the role of Prussian leadership.

Nature of unified Germany

- The new Germany had a strong army and powerful bureaucracy.
- It introduced a modern currency, banking system, legal system and administrative structure.
- Prussian dominance was clear: the Prussian king became emperor, the Prussian army became central, and Bismarck became Chancellor.
- Germany was not created by democracy; it was created by military power, diplomacy and conservative state leadership.

Board logic: **Germany was unified from above.** It was not the result of a mass democratic revolution. It was a conservative national unification led by Prussia and Bismarck.

14. Italy Unified - Full Structured Explanation

Italy's unification was more complicated than Germany's because Italy was divided into many states and several regions were controlled by foreign powers. The process required ideas, diplomacy, military action and monarchy.

Italy before unification

- Italy was divided into several states in the mid-19th century.
- Sardinia-Piedmont was ruled by an Italian princely house.
- Lombardy and Venetia were ruled by Austria.
- The Papal States were ruled by the Pope.
- The Kingdom of Two Sicilies was ruled by the Bourbon dynasty.
- Other states such as Tuscany and Parma were influenced by Habsburg power.
- There was no single Italian political identity among common people.

Major problems in Italian unification

- Foreign domination, especially Austrian control in the north.
- Political division into many states.
- Regional differences and lack of common language.
- Power of the Pope in central Italy.
- Ordinary peasants were not fully aware of the idea of Italy.

Main leaders and their roles

Leader	Role in unification
Giuseppe Mazzini	Gave ideological foundation. Wanted a united democratic republic and inspired nationalist youth through Young Italy.
Count Camillo di Cavour	Chief Minister of Sardinia-Piedmont. Used diplomacy, modern statecraft and alliance with France against Austria.

Leader	Role in unification
Giuseppe Garibaldi	Military leader of the Red Shirts. Conquered Sicily and Naples and supported Victor Emmanuel II.
Victor Emmanuel II	King of Sardinia-Piedmont. Became king of unified Italy.

Process of unification

- In 1858, Cavour made an alliance with France under Napoleon III.
- In 1859, Austria was defeated with French help.
- In 1860, Garibaldi and the Red Shirts conquered Sicily and Naples in southern Italy.
- Garibaldi handed over his conquered territories to Victor Emmanuel II.
- In 1861, Victor Emmanuel II was proclaimed King of Italy.
- In 1866, Venetia was added to Italy.
- In 1870, Rome was annexed after French troops withdrew.
- In 1871, Rome became the capital of Italy.

Important NCERT logic

Most Italian peasants were not deeply involved in the nationalist movement. The word **Italia** itself was unfamiliar to many ordinary people. This means Italian unification was mainly led by elites: Mazzini gave the dream, Cavour gave diplomacy, Garibaldi gave military action, and Victor Emmanuel II gave monarchical leadership.

Germany vs Italy - comparison

Point	Germany	Italy
Main leading state	Prussia	Sardinia-Piedmont
Main method	Wars under Bismarck	Ideas, diplomacy, war and monarchy
Key military figure	Bismarck used Prussian army	Garibaldi led Red Shirts
Foreign enemy	Austria and France	Austria and Bourbon/Papal influence
Nature	Conservative unification from above	Elite-led national unification

15. The Strange Case of Britain

Britain became a nation-state in a different way. It was not created by a sudden revolution like France or by wars of unification like Germany and Italy. It was formed gradually through the growing power of England and the weakening of other ethnic identities.

Main groups in the British Isles

- English
- Welsh
- Scots

- Irish

Role of England

- The English Parliament gained power after the 1688 revolution.
- England became economically and politically dominant.
- English language, culture and institutions spread over other regions.

Scotland and the Act of Union, 1707

- The **Act of Union, 1707** united England and Scotland.
- It created the **United Kingdom of Great Britain**.
- Scottish political institutions were weakened.
- English culture became dominant.
- In the Scottish Highlands, clan culture and Gaelic language were suppressed.

Ireland

- Ireland was divided between Catholics and Protestants.
- English rulers supported Protestants to dominate Catholics.
- Ireland was forcibly incorporated into the United Kingdom in 1801.

Creation of British identity

- A British identity was promoted through the **Union Jack**, national anthem, English language and British Parliament.
- This identity was dominated by English culture.

Exam logic: **Britain was formed through English dominance, not through an equal democratic union of all ethnic groups.**

16. Visualising the Nation

In the 18th and 19th centuries, artists often represented nations as female figures. This was called **allegory**. Abstract ideas like liberty, justice and nation were made easier to understand by showing them as human figures.

Liberty and Justice

- Liberty was shown with symbols such as the **red cap** and **broken chain**.
- Justice was shown as a blindfolded woman carrying **weighing scales**.

Marianne - France

- Marianne represented the French nation.
- She symbolised liberty, reason and the republic.
- Her statues were placed in public squares.
- Her images appeared on coins and stamps to create national unity.

Germania - Germany

- Germania represented the German nation.
- Broken chains symbolised freedom.
- Breastplate with eagle symbolised strength.
- Oak-leaf crown symbolised heroism.
- Sword symbolised readiness to fight.
- Olive branch symbolised willingness to make peace.
- Black, red and gold flag symbolised liberal-nationalist hopes.
- Rays of the rising sun symbolised the beginning of a new era.

These symbols helped people emotionally imagine the nation as something living, noble and worth protecting.

17. Nationalism and Imperialism

By the late 19th century, nationalism became more aggressive. Earlier nationalism often meant liberty, unity and rights. Later, it became connected with imperialism, rivalry and war. This dangerous form of nationalism was clearly visible in the Balkans.

The Balkans

- The Balkans was a region of south-eastern Europe.
- It included present-day Romania, Bulgaria, Albania, Greece, Macedonia, Croatia, Bosnia-Herzegovina, Slovenia, Serbia and Montenegro.
- Its people were broadly known as Slavs, but they had different languages, cultures and identities.
- Much of the region was under the Ottoman Empire.
- As the Ottoman Empire weakened, Balkan nationalities demanded independence.
- Each group used history and romantic nationalism to claim that it had once been independent and must become independent again.
- Balkan groups became intensely jealous of one another.
- Russia, Germany, England, Austria-Hungary and other powers competed for influence in the region.
- This made the Balkans explosive and unstable.
- The clash of nationalism and imperial rivalries contributed to World War I in 1914.

Anti-imperial movements

Nationalist ideas also inspired colonised peoples in Asia and Africa to resist imperial rule. However, creating nation-states was not easy because societies were diverse and colonial boundaries were complex. Still, by the 20th century, the idea of the nation-state had become widely accepted as natural and universal.

18. Key Terms and Timeline

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Nationalism	Feeling of unity and loyalty towards a nation.
Nation-state	A state whose citizens share a common national identity.
Utopian vision	An ideal dream-world that may not fully exist in reality.
Absolutism	A system where the monarch has unlimited power.
Liberalism	Belief in freedom, equality before law, constitutional government and markets.
Conservatism	Belief in monarchy, tradition, hierarchy and social order.
Zollverein	Prussian-led customs union formed in 1834.
Plebiscite	Direct vote by people on an important political issue.
Suffrage	Right to vote.
Allegory	Symbolic representation of an abstract idea.
Imperialism	Control of weaker territories by powerful countries.

Timeline

Year	Event
1789	French Revolution begins.
1804	Napoleonic Code introduced.
1815	Battle of Waterloo; Congress and Treaty of Vienna.
1821	Greek struggle for independence begins.
1830	July Revolution in France.
1831	Polish uprising against Russian rule fails.
1832	Treaty of Constantinople recognises Greece as independent.
1834	Zollverein formed.
1845	Silesian Weavers' Revolt.
1848	Revolutions in France and Germany; Frankfurt Parliament.
1861	Victor Emmanuel II proclaimed King of Italy.
1866	Venetia added to Italy.
1870	Rome annexed to Italy.
1871	German Empire proclaimed; Rome becomes capital of Italy.

Year	Event
1914	World War I begins after nationalist and imperial rivalries intensify.